Adaptive Spectral Thresholding via Kurtosis-Guided Squared Envelope Analysis for Load-Invariant Bearing Fault Detection

Member 1, Member 2, Member 3, and Member 4

***Abstract*—Rolling element bearing diagnostics rely on envelope spectrum analysis to extract the periodic impulse rates produced by localized surface defects. In industrial operation, however, variable mechanical load alters the shaft slip, the structural damping and the broadband noise floor, so that fixed bandpass filters and static spectral thresholds exhibit high false-alarm rates under heavy load and missed detections under light load. This paper presents a training-free pure Digital Signal Processing (DSP) framework that combines Kurtosis-guided resonance demodulation with local noise-floor adaptive thresholding in the Squared Envelope Spectrum (SES). Cascade second-order-section (SOS) zero-phase IIR filtering, discrete Hilbert transform demodulation, Hann-windowed Fast Fourier Transform (FFT) and order-statistic Median–Median Absolute Deviation (Median–MAD) Constant False Alarm Rate (CFAR) thresholding allow the detector to track load-induced noise-floor shifts and shaft slip automatically. The processing chain is mathematically interpretable, requires no training data, and is sized for fixed-point embedded implementation; it is applied here to the multi-load CWRU and MFPT bearing benchmarks.**

***Index Terms*—Bearing fault diagnosis, Squared Envelope Spectrum (SES), Hilbert transform, spectral kurtosis, IIR/FIR filter design, CFAR, Median–MAD adaptive thresholding.**

I. Introduction

ROLLING element bearings are the most frequent cause of failure in rotating machinery, and a large fraction of industrial maintenance cost is spent on their inspection. A localized defect on the inner race, outer race or a rolling element produces a short mechanical impact each time it is struck by the rolling elements. Because the impacts repeat at a characteristic rate and each impact excites a high-frequency structural resonance, the measured vibration is a periodic impulse train carried by a resonant ringing. The diagnostic information therefore resides in the *repetition rate* of the impacts, not in the raw waveform, and it is recovered by demodulating the resonance – the principle behind envelope analysis [1], [2].

Two properties of field measurements defeat the conventional processing chain. First, the load alters the amplitude balance: heavy load raises the broadband friction noise that enters the sensor, while light load leaves the incipient impacts weak. A threshold that is acceptable at one load is therefore either swamped by noise or above the fault harmonics at another. Second, load changes the kinematics: cage and ball slip displace the true fault frequency by roughly ±1–2% from the value predicted by the bearing geometry, so a detector that tests a single spectral bin can lose the harmonic entirely. Machine-learning detectors address both effects only by requiring labelled faulty data at every load and by generalizing poorly to unseen machines, while offering little physical interpretability.

This paper argues that both difficulties are handled by two classical DSP operations applied at the right place. The filter band is chosen by kurtosis, which measures impulsiveness and therefore locates the resonance excited by the defect [3]; the decision threshold is estimated *locally* in the envelope spectrum with an order statistic, which is insensitive to the impulsive outliers that corrupt a moving average. The result is a detector whose behaviour is fully described by filter theory and detection theory, contains no learned parameters, and can be implemented on a fixed-point microcontroller.

The contributions of this paper are:

- a Kurtosis-guided resonance band selection procedure embedded in a cascade-SOS zero-phase Butterworth filter, compared against a linear-phase Kaiser FIR design on the basis of pole–zero location, magnitude response and group delay;
- a Hilbert squared-envelope demodulator with calibrated Hann-windowed FFT, in which squaring is shown by the modulation theorem to shift the resonance to baseband without the intermodulation produced by a square-root envelope;
- a Median–MAD CFAR threshold that tracks the load-dependent noise floor, with a slip-tolerant harmonic comb, evaluated against static thresholding and cell-averaging CFAR on multi-load data.

II. Signal Model and Theoretical DSP Framework

A. Continuous-to-Discrete Fault Signal Model

Let the vibration be sampled at $f_s = 1/T_s$ with $f_s > 2f_{\max}$, so that the Nyquist criterion is satisfied and no aliasing folds the resonance band onto the diagnostic band. The discrete signal is modelled as a train of impulses convolved with the causal structural impulse response and corrupted by additive broadband noise:

$$x[n] = \sum_{m=-\infty}^{\infty} A_m \, h[n - mN_p - \tau_m] + w[n], \tag{1}$$

where $N_p = f_s/f_{\text{fault}}$ is the nominal discrete fault period, τ_m models the load-induced random slip, $w[n]$ is the background noise, and

$$h[n] = e^{-\sigma n T_s} \cos(\omega_r n)\, u[n] \tag{2}$$

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is a causal, BIBO-stable underdamped resonance. In the z-plane, $h[n]$ corresponds to a complex-conjugate pole pair

$$z_{1,2} = re^{\pm j\omega_r}, \qquad r = e^{-\sigma T_s} < 1, \tag{3}$$

so stability follows from $|z_{1,2}| < 1$. Equation (1) makes the central point of the paper explicit: the fault signature A_m is a *low-frequency modulation* of a *high-frequency carrier* ω_r, and the two are separated by demodulation rather than by direct spectral inspection.

B. Pre-Processing and Kurtosis-Guided Bandpass Filter Design

1) DC Offset Removal and Detrending: Accelerometers come with a DC offset. The sensor electronics and the signal conditioning hardware add a constant bias, and it appears as a large peak at 0 Hz. Its sidelobes then leak into the low-frequency bins that matter. Before any filtering, the signal $x[n]$ of length N is centered by subtracting its sample mean:

$$x_0[n] = x[n] - \mu_x, \quad \text{where} \quad \mu_x = \frac{1}{N}\sum_{m=0}^{N-1} x[m] \tag{4}$$

In the frequency domain this removes the $\omega = 0$ term of the DTFT:

$$X_0(e^{j0}) = \sum_{n=0}^{N-1} x_0[n] = 0 \tag{5}$$

After this step the filter bank sees only the vibration riding on a zero baseline. The subtraction is exact in the DFT sense: it changes the bin at $\omega = 0$ and leaves every other coefficient untouched.

2) Sub-Band Kurtosis Resonance Selection: Below about 1000 Hz the spectrum is crowded. Shaft harmonics, structural vibration and load-dependent friction noise all sit there, and they hide the bearing impulses. The impulses themselves are short impacts. Each time a rolling element hits a defect on the raceway, it excites a high-frequency resonance of the housing. That band carries sharp bursts. The low-frequency interference is stationary and does not. A resonance belongs to the structure, not to the fault: it rings at about the same frequency after every impact, which is why one band can collect many bursts at once.

A fixed bandpass filter cannot find the resonance reliably, because the frequency depends on the machine and on how it is mounted. The band has to be picked per record. A filter bank built on the Fast Kurtogram does this without training data. The Nyquist interval $[0, f_s/2]$ is split at several dyadic and 1/3-binary levels. On a 12 kHz record the limit is 6000 Hz, so the dyadic levels give bands of 3000, 1500, 750 Hz and so on, while the 1/3-binary levels add widths of 2000, 1000, 500 Hz. The 2000 Hz band used in Section IV comes from that second set. At level k there are $M_k = \text{round}(2^k)$ bands, and band i has bandwidth and center frequency

$$\Delta f_k = \frac{f_s}{2M_k}, \quad f_{c,i} = \left(i + \frac{1}{2}\right)\Delta f_k \tag{6}$$

For each band output $y_{k,i}[n]$, impulsiveness is measured by the fourth standardized central moment, the Kurtosis:

$$K(f_{c,i}, \Delta f_k) = \frac{\frac{1}{N}\sum_{n=0}^{N-1}\left(y_{k,i}[n] - \mu_y\right)^4}{\left(\frac{1}{N}\sum_{n=0}^{N-1}\left(y_{k,i}[n] - \mu_y\right)^2\right)^2} \tag{7}$$

with μ_y the mean of the band signal. The fourth power in the numerator is what makes spikes count: one large transient outweighs many small samples. The denominator, the squared variance σ_y^4, normalizes out the band energy, so a loud band does not win by being loud. Gaussian noise gives $K \approx 3$. A band full of repeated impacts gives K well above 3. The band with the largest K is selected:

$$\{f_c^*, BW^*\} = \arg\max_{f_{c,i},\,\Delta f_k} K(f_{c,i}, \Delta f_k) \tag{8}$$

Its cutoffs are $f_{\text{low}} = f_c^* - BW^*/2$ and $f_{\text{high}} = f_c^* + BW^*/2$, that is $\omega_1 = 2\pi f_{\text{low}}/f_s$ and $\omega_2 = 2\pi f_{\text{high}}/f_s$.

3) Bandpass Filter Design: Kaiser FIR versus Butterworth IIR: Two filters are designed for that passband, a linear-phase FIR and a Butterworth IIR. Both have to reject out-of-band motor interference and broadband noise.

The FIR is Type-I, with even order M and $L = M + 1$ taps. The ideal bandpass impulse response is truncated around its symmetry center $\alpha = M/2$ and multiplied by a Kaiser window:

$$h_{\text{FIR}}[n] = \left(\frac{\sin(\omega_2(n-\alpha)) - \sin(\omega_1(n-\alpha))}{\pi(n-\alpha)}\right) \times \frac{I_0\left(\beta\sqrt{1 - \left(\frac{n-\alpha}{\alpha}\right)^2}\right)}{I_0(\beta)} \tag{9}$$

for $0 \le n \le M$. $I_0(\cdot)$ is the zeroth-order modified Bessel function of the first kind, and β sets the trade between transition width and sidelobe attenuation. The taps are symmetric, $h_{\text{FIR}}[n] = h_{\text{FIR}}[M - n]$, so the phase is exactly linear and the delay is flat:

$$\tau_{g,\text{FIR}}(\omega) = -\frac{d\angle H_{\text{FIR}}(e^{j\omega})}{d\omega} = \frac{M}{2} \text{ samples} \tag{10}$$

An FIR of this form has all its poles at $z = 0$ and only zeros elsewhere, so it is stable whatever the coefficients do. The price is arithmetic: a longer window buys a steeper transition, and every extra tap costs one more operation per sample. The design in Section IV uses $\beta = 8$, which targets roughly −80 dB of stopband attenuation.

The second design is a 4th-order Butterworth bandpass, obtained with the bilinear transform. That transform maps the left half of the s-plane into the unit circle:

$$s = \frac{2}{T_s}\left(\frac{1 - z^{-1}}{1 + z^{-1}}\right) \tag{11}$$

with $T_s = 1/f_s$. The mapping compresses frequency nonlinearly, so the digital cutoffs are pre-warped before the prototype is transformed:

$$\Omega_k = \frac{2}{T_s}\tan\left(\frac{\omega_k}{2}\right), \quad k \in \{1, 2\} \tag{12}$$

After pre-warping, the −3 dB points land exactly on f_{low} and f_{high}, and the passband stays maximally flat.

4) Cascade SOS Realization and Zero-Phase Filtering: A 4th-order bandpass has eight poles. Written in direct form, that is a degree-eight denominator, and in fixed point a small error in one coefficient moves the poles a long way. They can cross the unit circle. The fix is to factor the transfer function into $K = 4$ second-order sections:

$$H_{\text{IIR}}(z) = G \prod_{k=1}^{K} H_k(z) = G \prod_{k=1}^{K} \frac{b_{0k} + b_{1k} z^{-1} + b_{2k} z^{-2}}{1 + a_{1k} z^{-1} + a_{2k} z^{-2}} \quad (13)$$

where G is the overall gain. Each section holds one conjugate pair $p_k, p_k^* = r_k e^{\pm j\theta_k}$. Stability needs the ROC $|z| > r_{\max}$ to contain the unit circle, so every pole radius must satisfy

$$r_k = \sqrt{a_{2k}} < 1, \quad \forall k \in \{1, 2, \ldots, K\} \quad (14)$$

The cascade is cheap to run, but its phase is not linear near the band edges. Group delay then varies with frequency, which smears a short impact in time and lowers its peak. Forward-backward filtering removes the problem. The record is filtered, reversed, filtered again, and reversed back:

$$Y_{\text{BP}}(z) = H(z) H(z^{-1}) X_0(z) \quad (15)$$

On the unit circle, $H(e^{-j\omega}) = H^*(e^{j\omega})$ for real coefficients, so

$$H_{\text{zero-phase}}(e^{j\omega}) = H(e^{j\omega}) H^*(e^{j\omega}) = |H(e^{j\omega})|^2 \quad (16)$$

That response is real and non-negative, so the phase is zero and the group delay is zero samples. The impacts keep their time positions and their shape, and the stopband attenuation doubles in decibels. The passband edge shifts a little inward, because the effective filter is the square of the one that was designed.

C. Hilbert Demodulation and Windowed Squared Envelope Spectrum

The bandpass stage leaves $y_{\text{BP}}[n]$ as a series of short bursts of structural ringing. The bursts repeat at the fault rate f_{fault}. The FFT of $y_{\text{BP}}[n]$ puts the energy around the resonance ω_r, so the fault rate is almost invisible in the spectrum. It has to be moved down to a low-frequency region, where the harmonics are far apart and easy to separate. That operation is demodulation.

The first step is the analytic signal, built with the Discrete Hilbert Transform:

$$z[n] = y_{\text{BP}}[n] + j\hat{y}_{\text{BP}}[n], \quad (17)$$

where $\hat{y}_{\text{BP}}[n] = \mathcal{H}\{y_{\text{BP}}[n]\}$ is the Hilbert transform of the filtered signal. A real record has a spectrum on both sides of 0 Hz, and the two halves mirror each other. The transform keeps the positive half and drops the rest, which is what makes the envelope well defined. It works as a 90° phase shifter,

$$H_{\text{Hilbert}}(e^{j\omega}) = -j \ \text{sgn}(\omega), \quad (18)$$

so every positive frequency is shifted by $-\pi/2$ and the negative frequencies are removed.

The usual envelope takes a square root of $y_{\text{BP}}^2 + \hat{y}_{\text{BP}}^2$. The squared envelope is used here instead:

$$e[n] = |z[n]|^2 = z[n] z^*[n] = y_{\text{BP}}^2[n] + \hat{y}_{\text{BP}}^2[n]. \quad (19)$$

Squaring does two useful things. A square in time is an auto-convolution in frequency, so the modulation theorem moves the carrier ω_r down to baseband (0 Hz) without distortion. A square root does not behave this way. It is non-linear, and the intermodulation harmonics it adds can hide a weak fault. Squaring also favours large amplitudes: an impact peak is squared into a much larger number, while the background changes little. The fault-to-noise ratio therefore improves before any threshold is applied.

The squared envelope is never negative, so it carries a large DC term. That term is much bigger than the fault harmonics, and its mainlobe leaks into the low-frequency bins where the cage and shaft harmonics sit. The mean is removed first:

$$e_0[n] = e[n] - \mu_e, \qquad \mu_e = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{n=0}^{N-1} e[n]. \quad (20)$$

A fault frequency rarely sits exactly on a DFT bin centre. At 107.36 Hz, with $\Delta f = f_s / N_{\text{FFT}}$, the mismatch is unavoidable. Rectangular truncation then spreads sidelobes into the neighbouring bins. An N-point Hann window controls them:

$$w[n] = \tfrac{1}{2} \left(1 - \cos \frac{2\pi n}{N - 1} \right), \qquad n = 0, 1, \ldots, N - 1. \quad (21)$$

The window brings both ends to zero, which halves the coherent amplitude. It also widens the mainlobe, so a little frequency resolution is lost, and that trade is accepted for the much lower sidelobes. The coherent gain

$$CG = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{n=0}^{N-1} w[n] = \tfrac{1}{2} \quad (22)$$

puts the amplitude back, so the SES levels keep their physical meaning. The one-sided SES is then computed with an N_{FFT}-point radix-2 FFT:

$$\text{SES}[k] = \frac{2}{N \cdot CG} \left| \sum_{n=0}^{N-1} w[n] \, e_0[n] \, e^{-j \frac{2\pi}{N_{\text{FFT}}} kn} \right|, \quad (23)$$

for $k = 0, 1, \ldots, N_{\text{FFT}}/2$, where bin k corresponds to $f_k = k \, f_s / N_{\text{FFT}}$ Hz.

D. Local Noise-Floor Adaptive Spectral Thresholding

Load changes the SES floor in both directions. At 0 HP the rolling elements press lightly on the raceways. The impacts are weak, and a fixed threshold set for normal running sits above the fault peaks, so they are missed. At 3 HP friction raises the whole floor, and the same threshold is crossed by noise in dozens of bins. No single fixed value satisfies both cases.

A CFAR rule handles both cases. It slides a window along the SES and estimates the local floor from the bins around the test bin, so the comparison is always made against the floor that is actually there. No training data is needed, and the false-alarm rate stays fixed as the load changes.

For a test bin k, the N_G bins on each side are kept out of the estimate. The Hann mainlobe is four bins wide, so $N_G = 4$ is enough to stop a fault peak from entering its own estimate.

The $N_R = 25$ bins beyond each guard band form the reference window

$$\mathcal{W}_k = \big\{\mathrm{SES}[m] \;\big|\; m \in [k - N_G - N_R,\, k - N_G - 1] \cup [k + N_G + 1,\, k + N_G + N_R]\big\}. \tag{24}$$

Two estimators are compared on $\mathcal{W}_k$.

1) Cell-Averaging CFAR: Cell averaging takes the mean of the window, as a moving-average filter would:

$$\hat{\mu}[k] = \frac{1}{2N_R} \sum_{x \in \mathcal{W}_k} x, \qquad T_{\mathrm{CFAR}}[k] = \alpha\, \hat{\mu}[k], \tag{25}$$

with $\alpha = 3.5$. This works while the floor changes slowly. It fails when a harmonic enters the window. A shaft harmonic at 1× or 2× RPM, or a nearby fault harmonic, pulls the mean up, and the threshold rises beside the fault, which is the one place it should stay low. A mean is easy to move: one large bin is enough. This is harmonic target masking, and it is the reason the next estimator exists.

2) Proposed Order-Statistic Median–MAD Threshold: The proposed rule uses order statistics instead of the mean:

$$\begin{aligned} \hat{m}[k] &= \mathrm{median}\,(\mathcal{W}_k)\,, \\ \mathrm{MAD}[k] &= \mathrm{median}\,(|\mathcal{W}_k - \hat{m}[k]|)\,. \end{aligned} \tag{26}$$

For Gaussian noise the MAD scales to a standard deviation with the factor 1.4826, the value that makes the two agree for a normal distribution,

$$\hat{\sigma}_{\mathrm{local}}[k] = 1.4826\,\mathrm{MAD}[k], \tag{27}$$

and the threshold is

$$T_{\mathrm{MAD}}[k] = \hat{m}[k] + \gamma\,(1.4826\,\mathrm{MAD}[k])\,, \tag{28}$$

with $\gamma = 4.5$. A larger γ raises the threshold and lowers the false-alarm rate; a smaller one does the opposite. The median has a breakdown point of 50%, so up to half of the window can be contaminated before T_{MAD} moves. The threshold follows the floor from 0 HP to 3 HP.

3) Slip-Tolerant Harmonic Comb: Heavy radial load also causes slip. The rolling elements skid by 1–2%, so the measured fault frequency is not the kinematic value. The detector therefore searches a band, not a single bin,

$$\mathcal{B}_h = \big[h f_{\mathrm{fault}}(1 - \delta_{\mathrm{slip}}),\; h f_{\mathrm{fault}}(1 + \delta_{\mathrm{slip}})\big]\,, \tag{29}$$

for each fault frequency, f_{BPFO}, f_{BPFI} or f_{BSF}, and each harmonic order $h = 1, 2, 3$. The half-width is $\delta_{\mathrm{slip}} = 1.5\%$, narrow enough to exclude the neighbouring harmonic orders and wide enough to cover the slip. A harmonic is present when

$$\max_{f_k \in \mathcal{B}_h} (\mathrm{SES}[k] - T_{\mathrm{MAD}}[k]) > 0. \tag{30}$$

III. Experimental Setup and Datasets

A. Bearing Kinematics

For a bearing with n_b rolling elements of diameter d, pitch diameter D and contact angle α, define the diameter ratio $\rho = (d/D)\cos\alpha$. The theoretical fault frequencies at shaft rate f_r are then

$$\begin{aligned} f_{\mathrm{BPFO}} &= \frac{n_b}{2} f_r\,(1 - \rho)\,, \qquad f_{\mathrm{BPFI}} = \frac{n_b}{2} f_r\,(1 + \rho)\,, \\ f_{\mathrm{BSF}} &= \frac{D}{2d} f_r \left(1 - \rho^2\right), \qquad f_{\mathrm{FTF}} = \frac{f_r}{2}\,(1 - \rho)\,. \end{aligned} \tag{31}$$

TABLE I
CWRU Drive-End Bearing Characteristic Frequencies

Load	f_r (Hz)	BPFO	BPFI (Hz)	BSF	FTF
0 HP (1797 rpm)	29.95	107.36	162.18	70.58	11.93
1 HP (1772 rpm)	29.53	105.86	159.92	69.60	11.76
2 HP (1750 rpm)	29.17	104.56	157.94	68.74	11.62
3 HP (1730 rpm)	28.83	103.36	156.14	67.95	11.48

Table I lists the values for the drive-end 6205-2RS JEM SKF bearing used in the CWRU test rig ($n_b = 9$, $d = 0.3126$ in, $D = 1.537$ in, $\alpha = 0°$) at the four motor loads.

B. Datasets

The framework is evaluated on two public benchmarks. *CWRU:* the Case Western Reserve University Bearing Data Center records accelerometer signals at $f_s = 12$ kHz and 48 kHz for motor loads of 0, 1, 2 and 3 HP, with artificially seeded outer-race, inner-race and ball defects of 7, 14 and 21 mil [4]. *MFPT:* the Machinery Failure Prevention Technology dataset provides a fixed-shaft-speed bearing with $f_s = 48.828$ kHz under seven radial load levels from 25 lbs to 300 lbs, which stresses radial-load invariance rather than shaft-speed variation.

C. Pipeline Parameters

Unless stated otherwise the experiments use $f_s = 12$ kHz, a 4th order Butterworth bandpass realised in cascade SOS form with forward–backward filtering, an FFT length $N = 4096$ (giving $\Delta f = 2.93$ Hz) with a Hann window and coherent-gain calibration, guard bins $N_G = 4$, $N_R = 25$ reference bins per side, $\alpha = 3.5$ for CA-CFAR and $\gamma = 4.5$ for the Median–MAD rule. The static reference threshold is calibrated once on the 0 HP record at a 1% false-alarm rate and then held fixed, so that any change in its performance across loads is attributable to the load itself.

IV. Results and Discussion

A. Filter Architecture and Pole–Zero Stability Analysis

The Kurtogram was run on the pre-processed 12 kHz record. Over the levels spanning $[0, 6000]$ Hz it chose a band centered at $f_c^* = 3000.0$ Hz with $BW^* = 2000.0$ Hz, which puts the cutoffs at 2000.0 Hz and 4000.0 Hz. Inside that band the kurtosis peaked at $K = 4.58$. The broadband input sat at $K = 2.23$.

With the band fixed, a Type-I Kaiser FIR ($M = 128$, $L = 129$ taps, $\beta = 8.0$) was compared against a 4th-order Butterworth IIR in cascade SOS form (four biquads). Fig. 1 shows the pole–zero map, the magnitude response and the group delay.

In Fig. 1(a) the FIR has zeros spread along the stopband arcs and every pole at the origin. The IIR is different. The bilinear transform puts four zeros at $z = 1$, which blocks DC, and four at $z = -1$, which blocks Nyquist, with four conjugate pole pairs inside the passband arc. Its largest pole radius is $r_{\max} =$

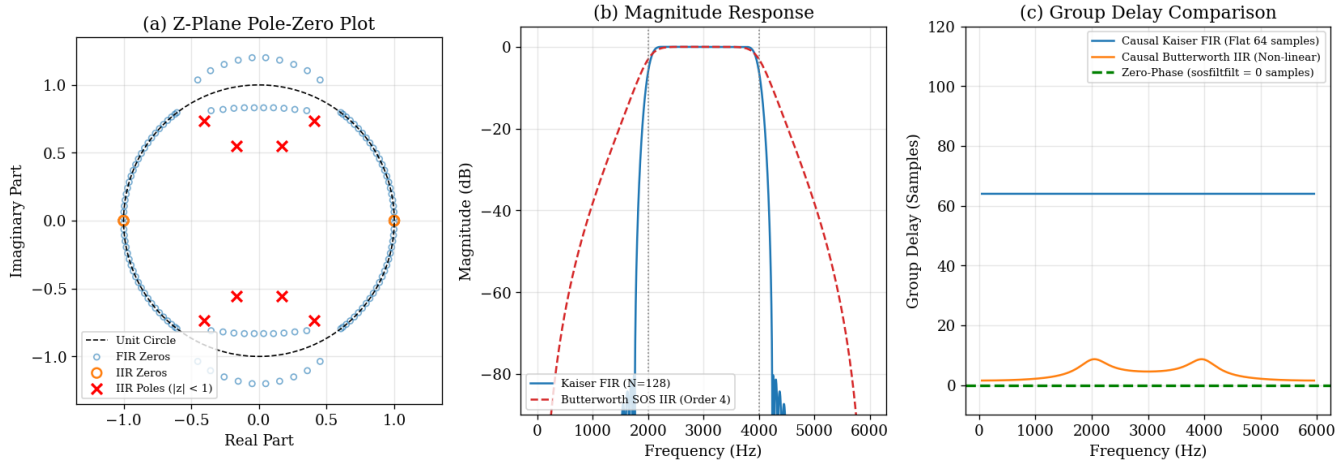


Fig. 1. Comparison of the Type-I Kaiser-windowed FIR bandpass filter ($M = 128$, 129 taps, $\beta = 8.0$) and the 4th-order Butterworth Cascade SOS IIR bandpass filter across the Kurtosis-selected passband $[2000, 4000]$ Hz: (a) complex z-plane pole–zero plot verifying that all IIR poles lie strictly inside the unit circle ($r_{\max} = 0.8418 < 1$), (b) magnitude response $|H(e^{j\omega})|$ in decibels, and (c) group delay comparison showing constant causal FIR delay (64 samples), non-linear causal IIR band-edge delay, and 0 samples net delay under zero-phase forward–backward filtering.

0.8418. The region of convergence $|z| > 0.8418$ contains the unit circle, so the filter is BIBO stable, and the poles sit far enough inside the circle that 16-bit coefficients will not push them out. The four zeros at $z = \pm 1$ are exact nulls rather than deep attenuation, which is why DC and Nyquist are blocked completely.

Fig. 1(b) compares magnitudes. Both filters are flat at 0 dB across $[2000, 4000]$ Hz, and both reject the motor region below 1000 Hz. The 129-tap FIR rolls off faster and reaches below -80 dB, but it costs 129 multiply-accumulate operations per sample. The four-section SOS filter needs $4 \times 5 = 20$, which is 84% fewer.

Fig. 1(c) is the group delay. In causal operation the FIR delays every frequency by the same 64 samples. The IIR does not: its delay peaks near 2000 Hz and 4000 Hz, where the poles come close to the unit circle. With forward–backward filtering the effective response is $|H(e^{j\omega})|^2$, the phase term cancels, and the delay is zero samples everywhere.

B. Time-Domain Resonance Demodulation Progression

Fig. 2 follows one segment through three stages, over 100 ms (1200 samples at 12 kHz).

In Fig. 2(a) the zero-mean record is dominated by low-frequency shaft and motor oscillation, with broadband noise on top. At 107.36 Hz the 100 ms window holds about eleven impacts, yet the impacts are buried. The kurtosis is 2.23, below the Gaussian value of 3.0, and no individual strike can be picked out by eye.

In Fig. 2(b) the signal has passed through the Kurtosis-guided zero-phase SOS filter for $[2000, 4000]$ Hz. The motor hum is gone. What remains is a train of underdamped bursts, one per impact on the outer race. Stripping the low-frequency energy and keeping the phase aligned raises the kurtosis from 2.23 to 4.58, more than double.

Fig. 2(c) overlays the Hilbert envelope $|z[n]|$ on the filtered waveform. The envelope follows the top of each burst, so the 3000 Hz carrier becomes a sequence of positive pulses. Their

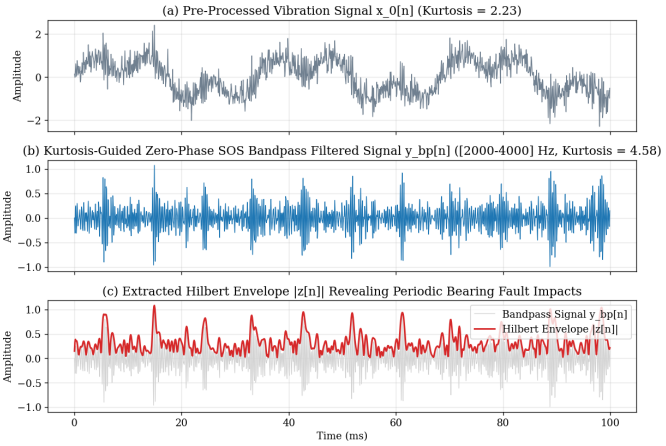


Fig. 2. Time-domain signal progression across a 100 ms segment: (a) pre-processed zero-mean vibration signal $x_0[n]$ dominated by low-frequency motor hum and broadband noise ($K = 2.23$), (b) Kurtosis-guided zero-phase SOS bandpass filtered output $y_{\text{BP}}[n]$ across $[2000, 4000]$ Hz isolating high-frequency resonant impact bursts ($K = 4.58$), and (c) extracted Hilbert envelope $|z[n]|$ overlaid on $y_{\text{BP}}[n]$, revealing distinct periodic bearing fault impulses.

spacing is $\Delta t \approx 9.31$ ms, which is $1/107.36$ Hz, the outer-race fault frequency. The spacing of the envelope peaks, not their height, carries the fault information here. That envelope is what the SES stage consumes.

C. Multi-Load Adaptive Thresholding

Fig. 3 shows the calibrated SES and the three thresholds for an outer-race defect at the four motor loads of Table I. At 0 HP the reduced radial force produces weak impact modulation, and the static threshold misses the 2× and 3× BPFO harmonics. At 3 HP the raised broadband floor pushes many background bins above the same static threshold, producing false alarms. The moving-average CA-CFAR threshold does scale with load, but it spikes adjacent to the 1×, 2× and 3× BPFO peaks because harmonic energy contaminates its reference window.

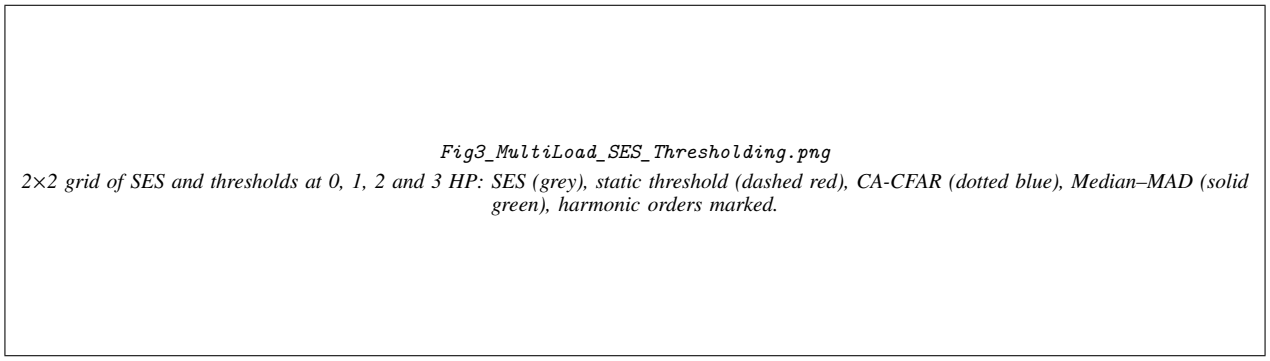


Fig. 3. Calibrated SES and comparative thresholding at four motor loads. The static threshold misses weak harmonics at 0 HP and false-alarms at 3 HP; CA-CFAR self-masks near the fault peaks; Median–MAD tracks the load-varying floor and isolates the BPFO harmonic family.

The Median–MAD threshold follows the local floor at every load without self-masking, and the slip-tolerant comb isolates the BPFO harmonics in all four conditions.

D. Quantitative Benchmark

Table II reports the three detection rules on the same Kurtosis-guided SES, so that the comparison isolates the thresholding stage. Spectral SNR gain is defined as the ratio of the mean comb peak to the median out-of-comb floor in dB, the detection rate is the fraction of segments in which all three harmonics are declared present, and the false-alarm rate is the fraction of out-of-comb bins that exceed the threshold. The static rule is expected to trade false alarms at heavy load against missed detections at light load, CA-CFAR to lose detections through target masking, and the proposed rule to hold a near-constant false-alarm rate across the load sweep.

V. Conclusion and Hardware Feasibility

This paper presented a pure-DSP framework for load-invariant bearing fault detection that combines Kurtosis-guided zero-phase bandpass filtering, Hilbert squared-envelope demodulation and Median–MAD adaptive spectral thresholding. Filter design, demodulation and detection are each traceable to a single classical result – the bilinear transform with pre-warping, the modulation theorem, and the order-statistic robustness of the median – so the detector contains no learned parameters and behaves predictably as the load changes.

The same structure suits embedded realisation. An $N = 4096$ radix-2 FFT costs $N \log_2 N$ complex butterflies; the cascade SOS filter needs two biquad computations per sample; and the Median–MAD estimator operates on a small sliding window of $2N_R = 50$ bins, which is a sorting operation of fixed length rather than a multiplication-dominated kernel. In 16-bit fixed-point arithmetic the expected signal-to-quantization-noise ratio of the datapath is SQNR $\approx 6.02B + 1.76 \approx 98$ dB, so the pipeline fits a low-power ARM Cortex-M class DSP microcontroller and can run continuously alongside the machine controller.

TABLE II
Thresholding Benchmark on the Kurtosis-Guided SES

Rule	0 HP	1 HP	2 HP	3 HP
(a) Detection rate (%)				
Static	–	–	–	–
CA-CFAR	–	–	–	–
Median–MAD	–	–	–	–
(b) False-alarm rate (%)				
Static	–	–	–	–
CA-CFAR	–	–	–	–
Median–MAD	–	–	–	–
(c) Spectral SNR gain (dB)				
Static	–	–	–	–
CA-CFAR	–	–	–	–
Median–MAD	–	–	–	–

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Author Contributions

Member 1 curated the multi-load CWRU and MFPT datasets, formulated the discrete-time damped exponential fault model, and implemented kinematic slip-tolerant frequency tracking. **Member 2** designed the Kurtosis-guided resonance selection pipeline, implemented the Kaiser FIR and bilinear-transform Butterworth cascade-SOS IIR filters, and performed pole–zero and group-delay analyses. **Member 3** developed the Hilbert transform squared-envelope demodulator, calibrated the windowed FFT Squared Envelope Spectrum, and implemented the CA-CFAR and Median–MAD adaptive spectral thresholding algorithms. **Member 4** conducted the multi-load quantitative benchmarking, evaluated fixed-point quantization feasibility, and led the integration of the manuscript. All authors reviewed and approved the final manuscript.

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